

Bridging Awareness and Action: The Roles of Gender Inequality, Power Distance, and Individualism in Shaping Collective Action Intentions for Gender Equality Across 61 Societies

Social Psychological and

Personality Science

1–13

© The Author(s) 2025

Article reuse guidelines:

sagepub.com/journals-permissions

DOI: 10.1177/19485506251388699

journals.sagepub.com/home/spp



Chunhui Yang¹ , Tony Huiquan Zhang¹ , Natasza Kosakowska-Berezecka² ,
Hongfei Du^{3,4} , and Peilian Chi¹ 

Abstract

Although awareness of gender inequality can motivate collective action, it does not always translate into a greater willingness to engage in collective action to promote gender equality. This study investigated how sociocultural contexts and individual awareness of gender inequality jointly shaped normative and non-normative collective action intentions. Drawing on cross-cultural data from 61 societies ($N = 31,393$), we found that individual awareness of gender inequality was associated with stronger collective action intentions, both normative and non-normative, aimed at promoting gender equality. However, macrolevel sociocultural factors moderated this relationship. Specifically, higher levels of societal gender inequality and power distance weakened the translation of individual awareness into action intentions. In contrast, greater societal individualism strengthened this translation. These findings underscore that promoting gender equality globally requires a dual focus on addressing not only individual-level awareness but also the broader structural environments that affect collective action intentions.

Keywords

awareness of gender inequality, collective action, gender inequality, power distance, individualism

Handling Editor: Osborne, Danny

Despite significant global efforts, the world remains off track to achieve the Sustainable Development Goal (SDG) of gender equality and the empowerment of all women and girls by 2030 (United Nations, 2024). Collective action is an important way to achieve gender equality, yet individuals often lack sufficient intentions to participate (Radke et al., 2016). Prior research suggests individual awareness of gender inequality (Riquelme et al., 2021; Yates, 1985) can influence collective action intentions. However, such awareness does not always translate into a greater willingness to engage in collective action for gender equality (Plummer et al., 2022). This translation may depend on sociocultural factors that facilitate or constrain collective action intentions (Hofstede & Bond, 1984; Markus & Kitayama, 2014; Pettigrew, 2021). Guided by the dual-chamber model of collective action (Agostini & van Zomeren, 2021), which calls for taking the lens of structural constraints in shaping motivational pathways to collective action, we extend this framework by examining how sociocultural factors serve as boundary conditions in collective action for gender equality. Specifically, leveraging large-scale cross-cultural data, this study investigates how individual awareness

of gender inequality interacts with three theoretically relevant sociocultural factors (i.e., gender inequality, power distance, and individualism) on collective action intentions.

Awareness of Gender Inequality and Collective Action Intentions

Collective action intentions (CAIs) in the context of gender equality refer to individuals' motivation to act and challenge

¹University of Macau, China

²University of Gdansk, Poland

³Beijing Normal University at Zhuhai, China

⁴Beijing Normal University, Beijing, China

Corresponding Authors:

Hongfei Du, Department of Psychology, Beijing Normal University at Zhuhai, Zhuhai, China.

Email: dhfpsy@gmail.com

Peilian Chi, Department of Psychology, University of Macau, Macau SAR, China.

Email: peilianchi@um.edu.mo

women's disadvantaged status in pursuit of greater equality and can manifest in both normative and non-normative forms (Becker & Tausch, 2015; Riquelme et al., 2021; van Zomeren et al., 2008, 2018). Normative CAIs refer to the willingness to engage in actions that conform to existing social norms, whereas non-normative CAIs reflect the willingness to participate in actions that challenge social norms or violate rules, such as laws (Tausch et al., 2011; Wright et al., 1990). Although prior research has primarily focused on normative and peaceful forms of actions (e.g., signing a petition), non-normative forms have received comparatively less attention (e.g., street blockades; Becker & Tausch, 2015; Uysal et al., 2024). This imbalance is important to address because normative and non-normative collective actions are driven by different psychological processes (Tausch et al., 2011). This study readdresses this gap by examining both forms of CAI in the context of gender equality, thereby offering a more comprehensive understanding of the roles of CAI in shaping collective actions.

Awareness of gender inequality is a theoretically recognized precursor to collective action for gender equality (Radke et al., 2016). Drawing on the dual-chamber model of collective action (Agostini & van Zomeren, 2021), we conceptualize awareness of inequality as a non-affective perception of injustice in gender relations. Consistent with conventions in gender research, we adopt the term "inequality" rather than "injustice." Within this framework (Agostini & van Zomeren, 2021), awareness of gender inequality may help individuals understand their group's situation, recognize the need for change, and become active agents of collective action.

Moreover, awareness is a promotable construct for interventions to achieve gender equality (Heymann et al., 2019), in comparison with other key motivators such as feminist identity, efficacy, and moral conviction (Moscatelli et al., 2025; Seviner et al., 2023; van Zomeren et al., 2008, 2018). Individuals must first become aware of a problem before they can act on it (Benford & Snow, 2000). For example, the #MeToo movement gained momentum largely through heightened awareness of the pervasiveness of sexual assault and harassment. Empirical evidence further shows that interventions designed to increase recognition of gender inequality enhance individuals' intentions to participate in feminist collective efforts (Becker & Swim, 2012; Case et al., 2014; Guthridge et al., 2022; Radke et al., 2016). Given its theoretical and practical relevance, this study examines the effect of awareness of gender inequality on CAI.

Sociocultural Factors Influencing the Translation of Awareness into Action Intentions

Individual awareness of gender inequality does not always translate into CAI against inequality (Plummer et al., 2022). Drawing on the dual-chamber model of collective action (Agostini & van Zomeren, 2021), we propose that

the association between awareness of inequality and action intentions may be contingent on sociocultural constraints, particularly society-level gender inequality, power distance, and individualism. These factors are theoretically relevant because they shape how awareness of inequality is interpreted and translated into action. Gender inequality creates external barriers and internalized ideologies that justify inaction; power distance fosters acceptance of inequality and discourages action; and individualism encourages individuals to act on their personal concerns (Agostini & van Zomeren, 2021; Smith et al., 2018). Taken together, these three sociocultural factors define the external opportunity structure within which collective action for gender equality occurs.

First, societal gender inequality reflects gendered structures that are embedded socially, culturally, and institutionally, and that shape individuals' perceptions of gender rights through various channels (e.g., policy, media, and legislation; Scarborough & Risman, 2017; Thomas et al., 2022). At the institutional level, gender-unequal societies often lack robust gender-equality legislation or policies, which may make individuals believe achieving equality is unrealistic (Agostini & van Zomeren, 2021; Scarborough & Risman, 2017). At the individual level, people living in gender-unequal societies are more likely to endorse hostile sexism (Napier et al., 2010) and accept the status quo, which demobilizes collective action to improve women's situation (Jost et al., 2018, 2017; Osborne et al., 2019). Therefore, structural gender inequality might operate via external barriers and internalized gender ideologies to create a climate of inaction. People may choose not to act despite their awareness of gender inequality.

Second, power distance, one of the cultural dimensions in Hofstede's framework, reflects the extent to which members of society demonstrate acceptance of the unequal distribution of power in institutions and organizations (Hofstede, 2011; Hofstede & Bond, 1984). In high power distance societies, deference to authority and acceptance of hierarchy may suppress responses to inequality and reduce intentions for social change, akin to system-justifying processes that legitimize the status quo (Du & King, 2021; Jost & Hunyady, 2002; Smith et al., 2018; Yang et al., 2007). When voicing their suppressed opinions in environments perceived as hierarchical, individuals often feel powerless and uncomfortable (Starkey et al., 2019). This suggests that individuals in more hierarchical contexts may be less likely to express dissent or engage in collective action. Thus, we propose that in societies with higher power distance, individuals may be less likely to translate their awareness of gender inequality into action intentions.

Third, individualism is another central cultural dimension referring to the degree to which individuals are loosely integrated into groups and are expected to value personal opinions, desires, and goals (Hofstede, 2011). In more individualistic cultures, such as the United States, the proverb "the squeaky wheel gets the grease" encourages individuals

to be aware of their problems, as asserting oneself is emphasized. In contrast, collectivistic cultures tend to stress conformity to social norms and highlight the negative consequences of challenging the status quo, which may discourage individuals from taking action to address issues like gender inequality (Kobayashi et al., 2021). Indeed, most empirical studies on collective action have found that individualistic cultures are more effective at promoting collective action (Agostini & van Zomeren, 2021; Hu et al., 2014). For example, individuals who recognize and feel dissatisfied with inequality are more likely to engage in collective action, particularly in more individualistic cultures (Smith et al., 2018). While some argue that individualism may hinder social change by promoting meritocratic beliefs that weaken CAI (Carvalho, 2021; Vázquez et al., 2023), this theoretical reasoning may not apply to gender equality, which is often framed as a structural issue rather than an outcome of individual merit. Given the dominant empirical evidence supporting the facilitating role of individualism, we hypothesize that higher levels of individualism will enhance the translation of gender inequality awareness into CAI.

This Study

Based on the dual-chamber model and using cross-cultural data from 61 societies, we investigated whether three socio-cultural factors (i.e., gender inequality, power distance, and individualism) moderate the link between individual awareness of gender inequality and normative and non-normative CAI. We proposed three hypotheses: (1) Awareness of gender inequality is positively associated with the intentions to engage in both types of collective action: normative and non-normative; (2) gender inequality (H2a) and power distance (H2b) are negatively associated with individuals' intentions to engage in these two types of collective action, while individualism is positively associated with these intentions (H2c); (3) gender inequality (H3a) and power distance (H3b) inhibit the translation of awareness of gender inequality into both types of CAI, whereas individualism (H3c) facilitates this translation. We further tested these hypotheses by including gross national income (GNI), age, and subjective social status as covariates to control for potential confounding factors (Kosakowska-Berezecka et al., 2024b; Li et al., 2019; Ridgeway, 2014).

Method

Preregistration

The hypothesis and research aim for this study were preregistered prior to conducting this study. The preregistration is available at <https://osf.io/fjwbu/>.

Participants and Procedure

The data for this study were sourced from the Towards Gender Harmony data set provided by Kosakowska-Berezecka et al. (2024a). Undergraduate student volunteers were recruited through convenience sampling, with a target of at least 100 women and 100 men per country, in line with common standards for cross-cultural research (see Kosakowska-Berezecka et al., 2024b; Zawisza et al., 2025 for details). The original data set comprised samples from 62 societies ($N = 33,313$), with sample sizes from each society ranging between 135 and 2,472 participants. Awareness of, and intentions for, collective action on gender inequality were operationalized in terms of women's status relative to men's; therefore, gender minority individuals (less than 2%) were excluded to minimize potential confounding. In addition, participants from Iran were excluded because they did not report either normative or non-normative CAI. The final data used were from 61 societies, including individuals ($N = 31,393$) who self-identified as women ($N = 19,630$, 62.5%) and men ($N = 11,763$, 37.5%). Table 1 provides information on the sample sizes and the scores of psychological and society-level indicators by society.

Measures

Awareness of gender inequality was measured using a single item from the Legitimacy and Stability of Gender Hierarchy Scales (Glick & Whitehead, 2010): *In general, our society currently treats women less fairly than it treats men*. Participants rated the item on a scale from 1 (*not at all*) to 7 (*a lot*), with higher scores indicating greater awareness of gender inequality.

Collective Action Intentions. We measured both normative and non-normative CAI to support gender equality. The six-item measure of normative CAI was adapted from the Environmental Action Scale (Alisat & Reimer, 2015). This adapted measurement has been tested for psychometric isomorphism and measurement invariance in a study by Besta et al. (2024); for example, *Participate in an educational event (e.g., workshop) related to gender issues/gender equality; use online tools to raise awareness of gender issues/gender equality, such as Instagram, YouTube, Facebook, Wikipedia, and blogs?*; Cronbach's $\alpha = .93$. The non-normative CAIs were evaluated using two items adapted from the measures used by Tausch et al. (2011), which measure willingness to engage in actions that challenge social norms (i.e., *Blocking buildings or streets and disturbing events where advocates of inequality appear*; $r = .59$, $p < .001$). Participants responded to these items on a scale from 1 (*not likely at all*) to 7 (*very likely*), with higher scores indicating stronger intentions to act for gender equality.

Table 1. Summary of Psychological and Sociocultural Variables by Society

Society	N	Age, M (SD)	Subjective social status, M (SD)	Awareness of gender inequality, M (SD)	Normative CAI, M (SD)	Non-normative CAI, M (SD)	GII	PDI	Individualism	GNI
Albania	232	23.07 (4.91)	6.22 (2.02)	5.31 (1.91)	4.58 (1.85)	3.57 (1.91)	0.13	90	20	14,350
Argentina	416	31.15 (11.84)	4.84 (1.82)	4.98 (2.17)	4.06 (1.99)	2.97 (1.97)	0.29	49	46	22,060
Armenia	221	20.14 (1.93)	5.79 (1.83)	3.91 (1.97)	2.86 (1.72)	2.84 (1.73)	0.22	85	22	14,460
Australia	653	29.76 (11.18)	5.65 (1.76)	4.37 (1.99)	3.49 (1.75)	2.45 (1.70)	0.08	38	90	51,560
Belgium	1,888	21.58 (6.02)	6.27 (1.49)	5.09 (1.62)	3.70 (1.53)	2.73 (1.61)	0.05	65	75	54,730
Bosnia	197	23.03 (5.89)	5.55 (1.61)	4.63 (1.84)	3.62 (1.68)	2.65 (1.65)	0.15	90	22	15,770
Brazil	1,073	23.96 (7.62)	5.40 (1.97)	5.66 (1.79)	4.73 (1.81)	3.31 (2.04)	0.40	69	38	14,850
Canada	910	19.90 (3.26)	6.31 (1.52)	5.07 (1.56)	3.26 (1.65)	2.65 (1.61)	0.08	39	23	50,810
Chile	228	22.29 (4.04)	5.09 (1.61)	5.68 (1.74)	4.25 (1.78)	3.43 (1.95)	0.21	63	20	24,140
China	587	19.87 (2.16)	5.22 (1.46)	4.48 (1.60)	4.08 (1.32)	2.81 (1.37)	0.19	80	13	16,740
Colombia	576	21.53 (4.97)	5.08 (1.79)	4.80 (1.95)	4.30 (1.75)	3.21 (1.90)	0.41	67	33	15,150
Croatia	320	23.19 (5.79)	5.50 (1.40)	4.79 (1.62)	3.70 (1.69)	2.65 (1.67)	0.12	73	58	29,520
Czechia	399	28.07 (8.55)	6.48 (1.51)	3.74 (1.91)	2.76 (1.52)	1.72 (1.19)	0.12	57	58	40,660
Denmark	253	25.40 (4.73)	6.40 (1.77)	3.87 (1.67)	2.71 (1.62)	2.01 (1.36)	0.02	18	74	61,410
England	732	22.29 (7.54)	5.48 (1.86)	4.76 (1.69)	3.66 (1.63)	2.70 (1.54)	0.11	35	89	48,040
Finland	292	26.13 (7.24)	5.36 (1.80)	4.43 (1.68)	3.96 (1.72)	2.26 (1.53)	0.03	33	63	51,210
France	417	22.15 (6.55)	5.30 (1.65)	5.66 (1.47)	4.24 (1.59)	3.18 (1.90)	0.09	68	71	50,390
Georgia	194	21.81 (3.39)	5.26 (1.54)	4.32 (1.97)	4.02 (1.67)	3.21 (1.56)	0.30	65	40	15,020
Germany	1,365	29.61 (10.36)	6.21 (1.71)	4.97 (1.64)	3.29 (1.59)	2.74 (1.56)	0.08	35	67	57,690
Ghana	320	20.29 (2.56)	5.52 (1.95)	4.10 (2.26)	4.79 (1.70)	2.64 (1.61)	0.52	80	15	5,510
Greece	284	26.38 (8.91)	5.69 (1.56)	4.81 (1.65)	4.35 (1.74)	2.82 (1.78)	0.12	60	35	31,350
Hungary	699	22.34 (4.27)	5.73 (1.42)	4.82 (1.66)	3.36 (1.65)	—	0.24	46	80	32,750
India	368	22.08 (4.98)	6.12 (1.66)	5.31 (1.56)	5.00 (1.27)	3.59 (1.75)	0.48	77	48	6,960
Indonesia	217	21.02 (3.96)	6.50 (1.45)	4.23 (1.76)	4.56 (1.24)	2.76 (1.38)	0.45	78	14	11,930
Ireland	562	19.87 (3.70)	5.86 (1.65)	4.34 (1.89)	3.18 (1.59)	2.66 (1.53)	0.08	28	70	68,050
Italy	2,406	22.81 (5.23)	5.73 (1.58)	5.22 (1.70)	4.19 (1.68)	3.28 (1.87)	0.05	50	76	44,580
Japan	206	21.68 (3.69)	5.75 (1.61)	4.99 (1.65)	3.08 (1.59)	1.79 (1.12)	0.08	54	46	44,780
Kazakhstan	336	20.21 (3.83)	5.56 (1.63)	3.79 (1.96)	2.71 (1.58)	1.93 (1.31)	0.19	88	20	24,050
Kosovo	412	20.30 (3.82)	5.80 (1.78)	5.31 (1.73)	5.10 (1.65)	3.71 (1.77)	0.12	90	25	14,350
Lebanon	126	19.60 (0.86)	5.23 (1.70)	5.63 (1.69)	4.69 (1.73)	3.81 (1.80)	0.39	62	40	15,260
Lithuania	314	23.92 (6.66)	5.35 (1.72)	4.18 (1.87)	3.23 (1.69)	2.32 (1.47)	0.12	42	60	37,010
Luxembourg	174	24.56 (5.32)	6.47 (1.55)	4.72 (1.69)	3.76 (1.62)	2.60 (1.59)	0.06	40	60	77,570
Malta	258	26.89 (10.08)	5.88 (1.61)	4.91 (1.72)	3.79 (1.77)	2.90 (1.75)	0.16	56	59	41,690
Mexico	335	23.63 (8.39)	6.73 (1.65)	5.13 (1.74)	4.07 (1.68)	2.60 (1.60)	0.36	81	30	19,810
Morocco	292	28.87 (9.55)	6.20 (2.11)	4.69 (1.89)	4.24 (1.85)	3.38 (1.91)	0.45	70	46	7,680
Nepal	213	22.37 (5.39)	5.36 (1.57)	4.88 (1.80)	4.80 (1.35)	3.36 (1.64)	0.50	65	30	3,600
The Netherlands	888	20.66 (3.41)	6.75 (1.44)	4.28 (1.56)	2.97 (1.42)	1.91 (1.23)	0.03	38	80	59,890
New Zealand	215	19.03 (2.35)	6.29 (1.60)	4.80 (1.52)	3.80 (1.54)	3.59 (1.69)	0.10	22	79	42,710
Nigeria	443	21.15 (3.13)	4.96 (2.09)	5.11 (2.20)	4.92 (1.65)	3.10 (1.86)	0.69	80	30	5,170
Northern Ireland	304	22.11 (5.57)	5.45 (1.64)	4.73 (1.85)	3.52 (1.78)	2.65 (1.70)	0.11	35	89	48,040
Norway	202	22.96 (3.77)	5.24 (1.84)	3.85 (1.83)	3.15 (1.58)	1.94 (1.26)	0.02	31	69	69,610
Pakistan	531	22.25 (3.27)	6.01 (1.93)	4.80 (1.85)	4.17 (1.51)	3.39 (1.56)	0.54	55	14	5,210
Philippines	452	19.83 (2.05)	5.99 (1.45)	5.20 (1.72)	4.33 (1.55)	3.11 (1.58)	0.39	94	32	10,200
Poland	740	22.98 (4.70)	5.15 (1.70)	3.96 (1.99)	3.19 (1.69)	2.04 (1.39)	0.11	68	60	32,710
Portugal	171	22.16 (4.91)	5.62 (1.41)	5.31 (1.48)	4.95 (1.48)	3.34 (1.74)	0.08	63	27	35,600
Romania	252	22.84 (4.55)	5.79 (1.71)	4.56 (1.73)	3.47 (1.70)	2.23 (1.46)	0.23	90	30	31,860
Russia	667	21.95 (6.90)	5.00 (1.51)	3.77 (1.96)	2.98 (1.71)	1.85 (1.25)	0.16	93	39	28,270
Serbia	689	22.26 (5.19)	5.90 (1.62)	4.90 (1.82)	4.01 (1.82)	2.61 (1.76)	0.12	86	25	17,960
Slovakia	584	21.91 (4.40)	5.42 (1.56)	3.95 (1.92)	2.84 (1.56)	2.27 (1.50)	0.19	100	52	33,680
South Africa	386	20.64 (2.68)	6.37 (2.05)	5.02 (1.84)	4.39 (1.77)	3.05 (1.83)	0.41	49	65	12,630
Spain	1,157	25.68 (8.72)	5.37 (1.63)	5.40 (1.75)	4.48 (1.66)	3.38 (1.84)	0.06	57	51	42,300
Suriname	180	22.92 (5.70)	5.40 (1.64)	4.65 (1.74)	4.30 (1.72)	3.00 (1.63)	0.41	85	47	15,200
Sweden	667	26.18 (7.35)	6.02 (1.70)	5.00 (1.88)	3.43 (1.75)	2.41 (1.46)	0.02	31	71	57,300
Switzerland	582	23.50 (5.30)	6.03 (1.71)	4.80 (1.69)	3.46 (1.65)	3.02 (1.40)	0.02	34	68	72,390
Turkey	1,451	22.26 (4.02)	5.84 (1.61)	5.25 (1.91)	4.28 (1.77)	3.29 (1.56)	0.28	66	37	27,410
UAE	521	20.01 (1.48)	6.45 (1.57)	4.71 (1.94)	3.65 (1.74)	—	0.05	74	36	70,240
The United States	772	20.37 (4.41)	5.49 (1.91)	5.19 (1.74)	3.69 (1.78)	2.89 (1.75)	0.19	40	91	65,880
Ukraine	278	19.30 (1.59)	5.60 (1.62)	3.42 (1.86)	3.40 (1.74)	2.50 (1.53)	0.16	92	25	13,750
Uruguay	189	22.68 (6.49)	6.77 (1.40)	5.02 (1.79)	3.92 (1.74)	2.57 (1.71)	0.27	61	36	21,120
Vietnam	391	22.46 (6.72)	4.76 (1.63)	4.38 (1.81)	4.78 (1.40)	1.89 (1.22)	0.39	70	20	7,750

(continued)

Table 1 (continued)

Society	N	Age, M (SD)	Subjective social status, M (SD)	Awareness of gender inequality, M (SD)	Normative CAI, M (SD)	Non-normative CAI, M (SD)	GII	PDI	Individualism	GNI
Wales	206	30.27 (10.25)	5.07 (1.58)	4.83 (0.01)	3.58 (1.86)	2.62 (1.86)	0.11	35	89	48,040
Total sample	31,393	23.03 (6.75)	5.77 (1.73)	4.83 (1.85)	3.84 (1.76)	2.81 (1.68)	—	—	—	—

Note. CAI = collective action intention; GII = gender inequality index; PDI = power distance index; GNI = gross national income per capita.

Gender Inequality was assessed using the 2019 Gender Inequality Index (GII; United Nations Development Program, 2019). GII is a composite index that captures macrolevel gender-based disparities across three critical dimensions of human development: reproductive health, empowerment, and labor market participation, which offers significant advancement in global measures of gender equality (Gaye et al., 2010). The GII is designed to highlight areas where women face disadvantages relative to men and reflects the potential loss in human development due to gender inequality. The GII ranges from 0 (gender equality) to 1 (gender inequality) with higher values indicating greater inequality.

Power distance was assessed using the macrolevel Power Distance Index (PDI) from Hofstede (2011), which provides a society-level rating reflecting the extent to which the less powerful members of a society accept and expect unequal power distribution. Higher PDI scores indicate greater acceptance of power inequality, while lower scores reflect a preference for more equal power relations ranging from 1 to 100.

Individualism was assessed using the macrolevel individualism index derived from Hofstede's individualism versus collectivism measure (Hofstede, 2011). In Hofstede's framework, individualism measures how much a society values independence. In individualist cultures, people are expected to care for themselves and their family, whereas in collectivist cultures, individuals rely on strong in-groups for support in exchange for loyalty. Higher individualism scores reflect greater emphasis on personal autonomy and self-reliance, on a scale from 1 to 100.

GNI (World Bank, 2020) is a measure of a society's per capita standard of living, adjusted for local price levels. In our analysis, GNI was included as a covariate to account for the possibility that cross-cultural differences could be attributed to variations in national wealth (Kosakowska-Berezecka et al., 2024b).

Age and Subjective Social Status. Age was considered as a demographic covariate in our model, as previous studies suggest it should be controlled when examining individuals' CAI (Li et al., 2019). We also controlled for subjective social status, as it reflects differences in power and access to resources within society, which may influence perceptions of gender inequality (Ridgeway, 2014). Subjective

social status was assessed using a 10-rung ladder illustration, accompanied by the instruction: "Please think about where you stand in comparison with others in your country" (Alder et al., 2000). Higher rungs represented those with more wealth, higher educational attainment, and better jobs.

Analytical Approach

Intraclass correlations were computed, revealing that 9.1% to 12.7% of the variance in the two types of CAI was explained by differences between societies. To account for the structure that individuals nested within societies, we used R (version 4.2.2, mainly the "lme4" package, Bates et al., 2015) and estimated multilevel models (MLM). We examined the sociocultural factors including GII, PDI, and individualism to see their links to CAI. The individual-level variables measuring awareness of gender inequality¹ and the control variables (i.e., age and social subjective status) were centered by subtracting the mean within each society from individual scores (group-mean centering). Society-level variables, including the GII, PDI, and individualism, and the control variable Gross National Index (per capita) were centered by subtracting their overall average across societies (grand-mean centering).

The analyses were conducted with individuals (Level 1) nested within societies (Level 2), and random intercept and slope models were estimated. We ran initial models with the key variables and cross-level interaction terms (GII, PDI, and individualism with awareness of gender inequality; Models 1A, 2A, and 3A, respectively). Then, to test the robustness of the results and strengthen the validity of the findings, age, subjective social status, and GNI were included as covariates in the analyses to account for potential confounding effects (Models 1B, 2B, and 3B, respectively). Given that power distance is strongly correlated with individualism ($r = -.72, p < .001$), we examined the moderating role of each sociocultural factor in separate models. Since our analyses involved multiple tests, we applied the Bonferroni correction to reduce the risk of Type I errors, adjusting significance threshold to a more conservative α of 0.004 (0.05/12).

To further explore whether women and men perceive and respond to inequality differently (Agostini & van Zomeren, 2021; Vázquez et al., 2020), we conducted exploratory analyses by testing final models with three-way

interactions to examine whether the joint effects of awareness and sociocultural factors on CAI vary by gender. We also report separate results for women (a socially disadvantaged group) and men (a socially advantaged group). Detailed results of these analyses are provided in the supplementary materials (Supplemental Tables S2–S4). All data and analysis code are available at <https://osf.io/fjwbu/>.

Results

Multilevel modeling results (see Table 2, Models 1A–3B) indicated that greater awareness of gender inequality was significantly associated with higher intentions to engage in both normative and non-normative collective action, supporting Hypothesis 1. None of the three sociocultural factors were significantly associated with either normative or non-normative CAI after controlling for covariates, thus not supporting Hypothesis 2.

Importantly, for normative CAI, all three sociocultural factors significantly moderated the association between awareness of gender inequality and normative CAI, meaning that Hypotheses 3a–3c were supported. The strength of this positive effect weakened at greater macrolevel gender inequality and power distance, but strengthened at higher levels of societal individualism. Simple slopes analyses showed that the awareness–normative collective action intention link was significantly positive at low, average, and high levels of the three sociocultural factors (all $p < .001$).

For non-normative CAI, societal gender inequality and individualism had the expected moderating effects, but power distance did not significantly hinder the translation of awareness of gender inequality into their non-normative CAI, supporting H3a and H3c but not H3b. Again, the awareness–non-normative collective action intention link was significantly positive at all levels of the three sociocultural factors (all $p < .001$).² The visualization of these effects can be found in Figures 1–3.

Discussion

Inspired by the dual-chamber model, this study aims to identify the sociocultural boundaries that shape the link between awareness and action intentions to promote gender equality. Our findings highlight the robust association between awareness of gender inequality and both normative and non-normative CAIs across different cultural contexts. However, this association is moderated by three sociocultural factors. Specifically, macrolevel gender inequality hindered the translation of awareness into both normative and non-normative CAIs. The hindering effect of power distance only emerged in normative but not non-normative CAI. In contrast, individualism

strengthened the translation of awareness into both types of CAI. These findings highlight the importance of raising awareness and underscore the critical need to contextualize gender-equality issues and actions within specific cultural and structural settings (Lin & Li, 2023), offering valuable insights for public policy aimed at driving societal change.

Main Effects of Awareness and Sociocultural Factors

Awareness of gender inequality catalyzes involvement in gender equality efforts, as evidenced by the support for Hypothesis 1. When individuals become aware of the pervasive nature of gender inequality, they are more likely to perceive the issue as too significant to ignore, motivating them to act. The role of awareness of gender inequality, understood as a non-affective perception, fits within the dual-chamber model of collective action and is in line with previous findings in other domains of collective action, where awareness can be a key driver (Agostini & van Zomeren, 2021; van Zomeren et al., 2008). Our cross-cultural study further confirms the facilitating role of awareness of gender inequality, regardless of whether the action intentions toward gender equality are normative or non-normative. Similar patterns across the different types of CAI suggest that awareness-raising interventions have the potential to stimulate diverse forms of collective action.

According to our results, sociocultural factors were not directly associated with CAI, providing no support for Hypothesis 2. The nonsignificant direct associations are inconsistent with some theoretical discussions on the importance of macrolevel influences. The macroenvironment may shape action intentions by providing a context for perception, social comparison, and identity construction (Agostini & van Zomeren, 2021; Thomas et al., 2022). Reference groups and comparison anchors may vary according to one's social surroundings and accessible peers (Suls et al., 2002). For instance, women in a region facing restrictions on abortion rights may compare themselves with women in regions where abortion is freely accessible. Such comparisons can influence their identity (Rehman Khan, 2021) and shape how they perceive their situation—that is, whether they feel gratified or deprived—which, in turn, affects their engagement in gender equality efforts (van Zomeren et al., 2008). However, our findings indicate that neither societal gender inequality, power distance, nor individualism directly predicted intentions to engage in either normative or non-normative collective action. Given the limited previous evidence and the theoretical potential of these factors, whether they function as global inhibiting or facilitating forces for gender equality efforts, or whether their impact depends on other factors, should be further clarified in future cross-cultural research.

Table 2. Results From Multilevel Modeling

Normative CAI																		
Predictor	Model 1A			Model 1B			Model 2A			Model 2B			Model 3A			Model 3B		
	b	SE		b	SE		b	SE		b	SE		b	SE		b	SE	
Individual level																		
Awareness of gender inequality	.33***	.01		.33***	.01		.33***	.01		.33***	.01		.33***	.01		.33***	.01	
Age				-.01***	.00					-.01***	.00					-.01***	.00	
Subjective social status				-.02***	.01					-.02***	.01					-.02***	.01	
Macrolevel																		
GII	2.32***	.41		1.49*	.66													
PDI							.90*	.37										
Individualism																		
GNI				-.08	.05													
Cross-level interaction																		
Awareness of gender inequality × GII				-.36***	.07													
Awareness of gender inequality × PDI	-.36***	.07					-.19***	.06										
Awareness of gender inequality × Individualism																		

Note. GII = gender inequality index; PDI = power distance index; GNI = gross national income per capita; Models 1A, 2A, and 3A represent the initial models examining the interactions of awareness of gender inequality with GII, PDI, and individualism, respectively. Models 1B, 2B, and 3B depict the final models, which incorporate control variables. The coefficients in bold indicate significance that remained after applying the Bonferroni correction for multiple tests.
 * $p < .05$. ** $p < .01$. *** $p < .001$.

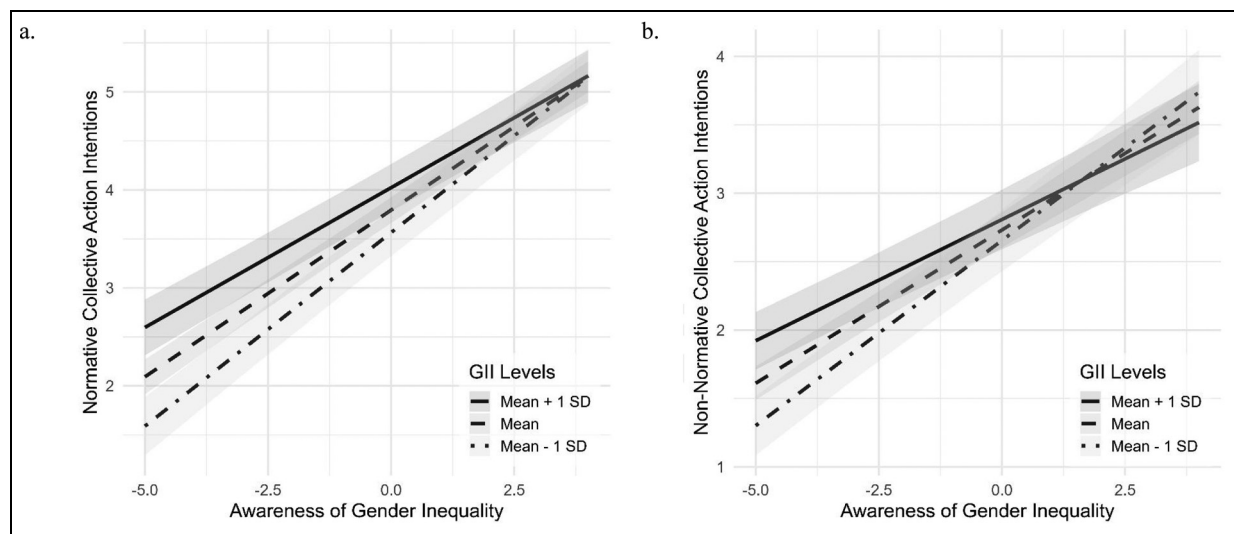


Figure 1. The Role of Macro-level Gender Inequality: (a) Moderation of GII on the Association Between Awareness and Normative CAI, and (b) Moderation of GII on the Association Between Awareness and Non-Normative CAI

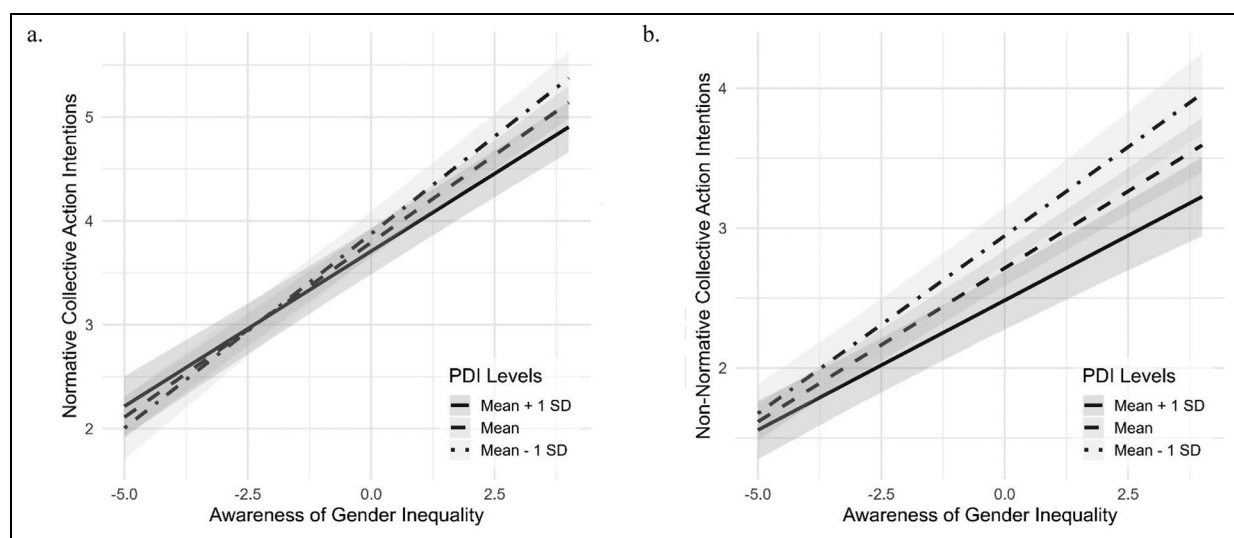


Figure 2. The Role of Macro-level Power Distance: (a) Moderation of PDI on the Association Between Awareness and Normative CAI, and (b) Moderation of PDI on the Association Between Awareness and Non-Normative CAI

Joint Effects of Individual Awareness and Sociocultural Factors on Collective Action Intentions

While awareness of gender inequality is crucial for advancing gender equality, our findings suggest that its motivational impact is shaped by the sociocultural context in which individuals are embedded. The identified interaction effects demonstrate that sociocultural factors do not negate or override the influence of awareness; rather, they condition how awareness transforms into CAI. Framing individual motivation and behavior within broader structural and cultural environments may help explain why some individuals remain silent or refrain from taking action against gender inequality, even when they acknowledge its existence.

The differentiated roles of sociocultural factors are worth noting. Gender inequality and power distance were found to hinder the translation of awareness of gender inequality into CAI. While this pattern echoes previous works on individual-level impediments, such as the effects of power distance orientation and gender-specific system justification (Becker & Wright, 2011; Lin et al., 2019), the existing studies mainly focused on direct psychological influences. By contrast, our study advances this line of research by showing that similar inhibiting effects operate at the societal level, where macrolevel gender inequality and power distance serve as structural constraints on the awareness–action link. Psychologically, in societies with

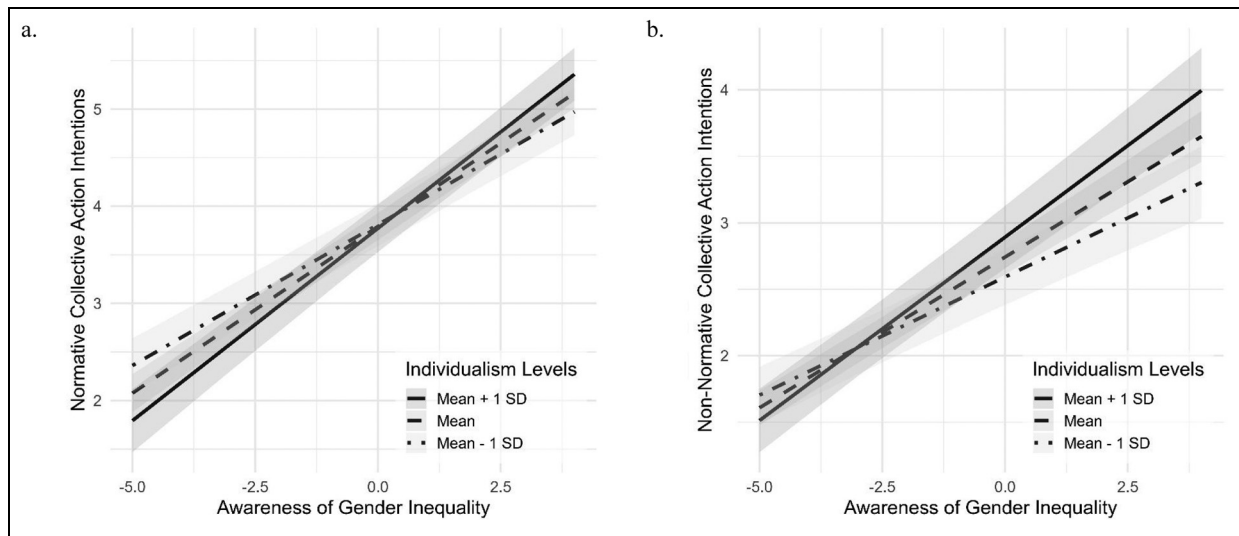


Figure 3. The Role of Societal Individualism: (a) Moderation of Individualism on the Association Between Awareness and Normative CAI, and (b) Moderation of Individualism on the Association Between Awareness and Non-Normative CAI

high gender inequality and power distance, individuals may support or accept existing inequalities, possibly because they internalize dominant norms or hold hope that the system will eventually offer opportunities for improvement (Napier et al., 2010; Owuamalam et al., 2019). Contextually, individuals in such societies may lack external support and channels (e.g., legislation and policy) necessary to bring awareness into action. Embedded in these contexts, they may also experience discomfort when acting on their awareness feels unsupported (Starkey et al., 2019).

Our findings show that individualism facilitates the translation of awareness into action intentions. This aligns with previous research suggesting that individualism may strengthen the positive association between identity (i.e., politicized and nonpoliticized group identities) and collective action (Agostini & van Zomeren, 2021). Although our study examined awareness rather than identity, the results suggest that individualism may similarly moderate the awareness–action intention link in gender equality domain. In individualistic cultures, where personal opinions are emphasized, individuals may feel less constrained by structural norms and less reliant on deferred hopes for future change (Hofstede, 2011; Owuamalam et al., 2019). While one may argue that individualism promotes meritocratic beliefs which could undermine collective action (Carvalho, 2021; Vázquez et al., 2023), our study finds otherwise. One possible reason is that gender equality movements are typically framed as efforts to address structural, women’s disadvantages, rather than matters of individual merit. Within this framing, individualism may be less likely to activate meritocratic reasoning and instead provide a context that supports the translation of awareness into CAI.

Theoretically, our study expands the dual-chamber model into the gender-equality domain. Our research findings help to answer under which sociocultural conditions

individual awareness can be more effectively translated into action for gender equality. Using a large-scale cross-cultural sample, this study responds to Agostini and van Zomeren’s (2021) call to consider structural contexts in motivations for collective action. Practically, our findings highlight the need to align awareness-raising strategies with sociocultural contexts when promoting gender equality. Interventions should target both micro- and macrolevels (Croft et al., 2021). In high gender inequality or power distance settings, efforts should focus on lowering perceived barriers to action by combining bottom-up approaches (e.g., individual leadership) with top-down policy reforms (e.g., employment legislation; Guthridge et al., 2022). In more individualistic societies, fostering agency by emphasizing immediate achievable progress rather than future goals can more effectively encourage action (Owuamalam et al., 2021).

Limitations and Future Agenda

We acknowledge several limitations in the present research. First, the use of single-item measures to assess awareness of gender equality, while having been shown to be relatively reliable (Christophersen & Konradt, 2011), may not fully capture the multidimensional nature of this concept. Conceptualizing awareness of gender inequality as multidimensional can enhance the accuracy of assessing perceptions across domains, facilitate exploration of relationships with other variables, and inform comprehensive interventions to promote gender equality (Ciaffoni et al., 2025; Schwartz-Salazar et al., 2024). Second, given that our participants were relatively young and primarily university students, they may have a higher likelihood of perceiving gender inequalities as illegitimate. In contrast, elder and less educated populations

might be more sensitive to macroenvironmental factors, potentially showing stronger contingent effects of socio-cultural factors on reactions to inequality. Third, due to data availability, our analysis could not include other established predictors of collective action (e.g., social identification with disadvantaged or politicized groups and efficacy beliefs) as covariates. Finally, although this study presents linear relationships,³ researchers should not overlook the investigation of nonlinear effects in predictors of collective action (e.g., inverted U-curves, Selvanathan et al., 2025).

Conclusion

This study provides empirical evidence that awareness of gender inequality serves as a catalyst for gender equality action intentions. As individuals are embedded within and influenced by the macroenvironment, such catalyst role is moderated by sociocultural factors such as gender inequality, power distance, and individualism. To promote gender equality and encourage collective action, society needs to not only raise individual awareness but also provide a welcoming social and cultural context that facilitates the translation from gender equality awareness to meaningful collective action.

ORCID iDs

Chunhui Yang  <https://orcid.org/0000-0001-9205-0491>
 Tony Huiquan  <https://orcid.org/0000-0002-3587-5910>
 Natasza Kosakowska-Berezecka  <https://orcid.org/0000-0003-3503-3921>
 Hongfei Du  <https://orcid.org/0000-0002-9605-8463>
 Peilian Chi  <https://orcid.org/0000-0002-1839-1113>

Ethical Consideration

Not applicable.

Funding

The author(s) disclosed receipt of the following financial support for the research, authorship, and/or publication of this article: Preparation of this article was supported by the joint grant by Macao Science and Technology Development Fund (FDCT, grant no. 0095/2022/AFJ) and National Natural Science Foundation of China (NSFC, grant no. 62261160652), the grant by Research Council at University of Macau (MYRG-GRG2024-00269-FSS), the grant by The MOE (Ministry of Education in China) Project of Humanities and Social Sciences (24YJA190001), and the grant from the National Science Centre in Poland (grant number: 2017/26/M/HS6/00360).

Declaration of Conflicting Interests

The authors declared no potential conflicts of interest with respect to the research, authorship, and/or publication of this article.

Supplemental Material

Supplemental material for this article is available online.

Notes

1. As a robustness check, we also added grand-mean-centered society-level awareness of gender inequality to the model. This variable was computed by first averaging individual awareness scores within each society and then grand-mean centering these values across all societies to capture the between-society variance in awareness. After controlling for grand-mean-centered society-level awareness of gender inequality, our results remained consistent (see Supplemental Table S1).
2. The three-way interactions indicated that the interactive effects of awareness and the sociocultural factors did not significantly differ by gender, and the results were largely replicated when models were estimated separately for men and women (see Supplemental Tables S2–S4).
3. We tested for potential nonlinear effects in our sample. Although including a quadratic term of awareness slightly improved model fit, it did not provide additional theoretical insights within the observed data range (e.g., no meaningful turning point was identified; see Supplemental Table S5, Figure S1). Therefore, for the sake of parsimony, we retained the linear model in the main analyses.

References

- Adler, N. E., Epel, E. S., Castellazzo, G., & Ickovics, J. R. (2000). Relationship of subjective and objective social status with psychological and physiological functioning: Preliminary data in healthy, White women. *Health Psychology, 19*(6), 586–592. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0278-6133.19.6.586>
- Agostini, M., & van Zomeren, M. (2021). Toward a comprehensive and potentially cross-cultural model of why people engage in collective action: A quantitative research synthesis of four motivations and structural constraints. *Psychological Bulletin, 147*(7), 667–700. <https://doi.org/10.1037/bul0000256>
- Alisat, S., & Riemer, M. (2015). The environmental action scale: Development and psychometric evaluation. *Journal of Environmental Psychology, 43*, 13–23. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jenvp.2015.05.006>
- Bates, D., Mächler, M., Bolker, B., & Walker, S. (2015). Fitting linear mixed-effects models Using lme4. *Journal of Statistical Software, 67*(1), 1–48. <https://doi.org/10.18637/jss.v067.i01>
- Becker, J. C., & Swim, J. K. (2012). Reducing endorsement of benevolent and modern sexist beliefs: Differential effects of addressing harm versus pervasiveness of benevolent sexism. *Social Psychology, 43*, 127–137. <https://doi.org/10.1027/1864-9335/a000091>
- Becker, J. C., & Tausch, N. (2015). A dynamic model of engagement in normative and non-normative collective action: Psychological antecedents, consequences, and barriers. *European Review of Social Psychology, 26*(1), 43–92. <https://doi.org/10.1080/10463283.2015.1094265>
- Becker, J. C., & Wright, S. C. (2011). Yet another dark side of chivalry: Benevolent sexism undermines hostile sexism motivates collective action for social change. *Journal of Personality Social Psychology, 101*, 62–77. <https://doi.org/10.1037/a0022615>

- Benford, R. D., & Snow, D. A. (2000). Framing processes and social movements: An overview and assessment. *Annual Review of Sociology*, 26(1), 611–639. <https://www.jstor.org/stable/223459>
- Besta, T., Jurek, P., Olech, M., Włodarczyk, A., Kosakowska-Berezecka, N., Bosson, J. K., Bender, M., Vandello, J. A., Abuhamed, S., Agyemang, C. B., Akbaş, G., Albayrak-Aydin, N., Ammirati, S., Anderson, J., Anjum, G., Ariyanto, A., Aruta, J. J. B. R., Ashraf, M., Bakaitytė, A., . . . Żadkowska, M. (2024). Measuring collective action intention toward gender equality across cultures. *European Journal of Psychological Assessment*. Advance online publication. <https://doi.org/10.1027/1015-5759/a000857>
- Carvalho, J.-P. (2021). Markets and communities: The social cost of the meritocracy. *Journal of Institutional Economics*, 18, 501–519. <https://doi.org/10.1017/s174413742100045x>
- Case, K. A., Hensley, R., & Anderson, A. (2014). Reflecting on heterosexual and male privilege: Interventions to raise awareness. *Journal of Social Issues*, 70(4), 722–740. <https://doi.org/10.1111/josi.12088>
- Christophersen, T., & Konradt, U. (2011). Reliability, validity, and sensitivity of a single-item measure of online store usability. *International Journal of Human-computer Studies*, 69(4), 269–280. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.ijhcs.2010.10.005>
- Ciaffoni, S., Rubini, M., & Moscatelli, S. (2025). The unbearable weight of gender inequalities: Development and validation of the Social Treatment and Experiences of Women (STEW) Scale. *Sex Roles*, 91(1), Article 3. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11199-024-01555-1>
- Croft, A., Atkinson, C., Sandstrom, G., Orbell, S., & Aknin, L. (2021). Loosening the GRIP (gender roles inhibiting prosociality) to promote gender equality. *Personality and Social Psychology Review*, 25(1), 66–92. <https://doi.org/10.1177/1088868320964615>
- Du, H., & King, R. B. (2021). What predicts perceived economic inequality? The roles of actual inequality, system justification, and fairness considerations. *British Journal of Social Psychology*, 61(1), 19–36. <https://doi.org/10.1111/bjso.12468>
- Gaye, A., Klugman, J., Kovacevic, M., Twigg, S., & Zambrano, E. (2010). *Measuring key disparities in human development: The gender inequality index* (Human Development research paper 4610). <http://hdr.undp.org/en/content/measuring-key-disparities-human-development>
- Glick, P., & Whitehead, J. (2010). Hostility toward men and the perceived stability of male dominance. *Social Psychology*, 41(3), 177–185. <https://doi.org/10.1027/1864-9335/a000025>
- Guthridge, M., Kirkman, M., Penovic, T., & Giummarra, M. J. (2022). Promoting gender equality: A systematic review of interventions. *Social Justice Research*, 35(3), 318–343. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11211-022-00398-z>
- Heymann, J., Levy, J. K., Bose, B., Ríos-Salas, V., Mekonen, Y., Swaminathan, H., Omidakhsh, N., Gadoth, A., Huh, K., Greene, M. E., Darmstadt, G. L., Darmstadt, G. L., Greene, M. E., Hawkes, S., Heise, L., Henry, S., Heymann, J., Klugman, J., Levine, R., & Raj, A. (2019). Improving health with programmatic, legal, and policy approaches to reduce gender inequality and change restrictive gender norms. *The Lancet*, 393(10190), 2522–2534. [https://doi.org/10.1016/s0140-6736\(19\)30656-7](https://doi.org/10.1016/s0140-6736(19)30656-7)
- Hofstede, G. (2011). Dimensionalizing cultures: The Hofstede model in context. *Online Readings in Psychology and Culture*, 2(1), Article 8.
- Hofstede, G., & Bond, M. H. (1984). Hofstede's culture dimensions: An independent validation using Rokeach's value survey. *Journal of Cross-Cultural Psychology*, 15(4), 417–433. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0022002184015004003>
- Hu, H.-H., Lin, J., & Cui, W. (2014). Cultural differences and collective action: A social network perspective. *Complexity*, 20(4), 68–77. <https://doi.org/10.1002/cplx.21515>
- Jost, J., & Hunyady, O. (2002). The psychology of system justification and the palliative function of ideology. *European Review of Social Psychology*, 13(1), 111–153. <https://doi.org/10.1080/10463280240000046>
- Jost, J. T., Badaan, V., Goudarzi, S., Hoffarth, M., & Mogami, M. (2018). The future of system justification theory. *British Journal of Social Psychology*, 58(2), 382–392. <https://doi.org/10.1111/bjso.12309>
- Jost, J. T., Becker, J., Osborne, D., & Badaan, V. (2017). Missing in (collective) action: Ideology, system justification, and the motivational antecedents of two types of protest behavior. *Current Directions in Psychological Science*, 26(2), 99–108. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0963721417690633>
- Kobayashi, T., Miura, A., Madrid-Morales, D., & Shimizu, H. (2021). Why are politically active people avoided in countries with collectivistic culture? A cross-cultural experiment. *Journal of Cross-Cultural Psychology*, 52(4), 388–405. <https://doi.org/10.1177/00220221211008653>
- Kosakowska-Berezecka, N., Besta, T., Jurek, P., Olech, M., Sobiecki, J., Bosson, J., Vandello, J. A., Best, D., Zawisza, M., Safdar, S., Włodarczyk, A., & Żadkowska, M. (2024a). Towards gender harmony dataset: Gender beliefs and gender stereotypes in 62 countries. *Scientific Data*, 11(1), Article 392. <https://doi.org/10.1038/s41597-024-03235-x>
- Kosakowska-Berezecka, N., Sawicki, A., Celikkol, G., Bosson, J. K., Van Laar, C., Van Rossum, A., Best, D., Jurek, P., Besta, T., Olech, M., & Glick, P. (2024b). Does culture moderate gender stereotypes? Individualism predicts communal (but not agentic) prescriptions for men across 62 nations. *Social Psychological and Personality Science*, 15(4), 359–372. <https://doi.org/10.1177/19485506231221913>
- Li, K., Xu, Y., Yang, S., & Guo, Y. (2019). Social class, group-based anger, and collective action intentions in China. *Journal of Pacific Rim Psychology*, 13. <https://doi.org/10.1017/prp.2018.26>
- Lin, X., Chen, Z. X., Tse, H. H. M., Wei, W., & Ma, C. (2019). Why and when employees like to speak up more under humble leaders? The roles of personal sense of power and power distance. *Journal of Business Ethics*, 158(4), 937–950. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s10551-017-3704-2>
- Lin, Z., & Li, N. (2023). Contextualizing gender disparity in editorship in psychological science. *Perspectives on Psychological Science*, 18(4), 887–907. <https://doi.org/10.1177/17456916221117159>
- Markus, H. R., & Kitayama, S. (2014). Culture and the self: Implications for cognition, emotion, and motivation. In P. G. Altbach, K. Arnold, & I. C. King (Eds.), *College student development and academic life* (pp. 264–293). Routledge.
- Moscatelli, S., Mazzuca, S., Menegatti, M., & Rubini, M. (2025). Women's participation in collective action for workplace

- gender equality: The role of perceived relative deprivation, resentment, and moral conviction. *Sex Roles*, 91(4), Article 22. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11199-025-01573-7>
- Napier, J. L., Thorisdottir, H., & Jost, J. T. (2010). The joy of sexism? A multinational investigation of hostile and benevolent justifications for gender inequality and their relations to subjective well-being. *Sex Roles: A Journal of Research*, 62(7–8), 405–419. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11199-009-9712-7>
- Osborne, D., Jost, J. T., Becker, J. C., Badaan, V., & Sibley, C. G. (2019). Protesting to challenge or defend the system? A system justification perspective on collective action. *European Journal of Social Psychology*, 49, 244–269. <https://doi.org/10.1002/ejsp.2522>
- Owuamalam, C. K., Caricati, L., Rubin, M., Matos, A. S., & Spears, R. (2021). Why do women support socio-economic systems that disadvantage them? A registered test of system justification- and social identity-inspired hope explanations. *European Journal of Social Psychology*, 51(7), 1073–1095. <https://doi.org/10.1002/ejsp.2754>
- Owuamalam, C. K., Rubin, M., & Spears, R. (2019). Is a system motive really necessary to explain the system justification effect? A response to Jost (2019) and Jost, Badaan, Goudarzi, Hoffarth, and Mogami (2019). *British Journal of Social Psychology*, 58(2), 393–409. <https://doi.org/10.1111/bjso.12323>
- Pettigrew, T. F. (2021). *Contextual social psychology: Reanalysing prejudice, voting and intergroup contact*. American Psychological Association.
- Plummer, J. A., Wray-Lake, L., Alvis, L., Metzger, A., & Syvertsen, A. K. (2022). Assessing the link between adolescents' awareness of inequality and civic engagement across time and racial/ethnic groups. *Journal of Youth and Adolescence*, 51(3), 428–442. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s10964-021-01545-6>
- Radke, H. R. M., Hornsey, M. J., & Barlow, F. K. (2016). Barriers to women engaging in collective action to overcome sexism. *American Psychologist*, 71(9), 863–874. <https://doi.org/10.1037/a0040345>
- Rehman Khan, S. (2021). Different and better than you: The interplay between social identity, moral identity, and social comparison. *Journal of Community & Applied Social Psychology*, 31, 615–635. <https://doi.org/10.1002/casp.2549>
- Ridgeway, C. L. (2014). Why status matters for inequality. *American Sociological Review*, 79(1), 1–16. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0003122413515997>
- Riquelme, A. R., Carretero-Dios, H., Megías, J. L., & Romero-Sánchez, M. (2021). Joking for gender equality: Subversive humor against sexism motivates collective action in men women with weaker feminist identity. *Sex Roles*, 84, 1–13. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11199-020-01154-w>
- Scarborough, W. J., & Risman, B. J. (2017). Changes in the gender structure: Inequality at the individual, interactional, and macro dimensions. *Sociology Compass*, 11(10), Article e12515. <https://doi.org/10.1111/soc4.12515>
- Schwartz-Salazar, S., García-Sánchez, E., Martínez, R., & Rodríguez-Bailón, R. (2024). Development and validation of the Multidimensional Gender Inequality Perception Scale (MuGIPS). *PLOS ONE*, 19(4), Article e0301755. <https://doi.org/10.1371/journal.pone.0301755>
- Selvanathan, H. P., Valdenegro, D., Noor, M., Visintin, E. P., Lalot, F., Sainz, M., Bilewicz, M., Hayward, L., Sebben, S., Ullrich, J., & Hässler, T. (2025). On the nonlinear link between stigma and collective action: Evidence from sexual and gender minorities in 25 countries. *Group Processes & Intergroup Relations*, 28(4), 752–773. <https://doi.org/10.1177/13684302241309539>
- Sevincer, A. T., Galinsky, C., Martensen, L., & Oettingen, G. (2023). Political ideology outdoes personal experience in predicting support for gender equality. *Political Psychology*, 44, 829–855. <https://doi.org/10.1111/pops.12887>
- Smith, H. J., Ryan, D. A., Jaurique, A., Pettigrew, T. F., Jetten, J., Ariyanto, A., Autin, F., Ayub, N., Badea, C., Besta, T., Butera, F., Costa-Lopes, R., Cui, L., Fantini, C., Finchilescu, G., Gaertner, L., Gollwitzer, M., Gómez, Á., González, R., & Hong, Y. Y. (2018). Cultural values moderate the impact of relative deprivation. *Journal of Cross-Cultural Psychology*, 49(8), 1183–1218. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0022022118784213>
- Starkey, J. C., Koerber, A., Sternadori, M., & Pitchford, B. (2019). #MeToo goes global: Media framing of silence breakers in four national settings. *Journal of Communication Inquiry*, 43(4), 437–461. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0196859919865254>
- Suls, J., Martin, R., & Wheeler, L. (2002). Social comparison: Why, with whom, and with what effect? *Current Directions in Psychological Science*, 11(5), 159–163. <https://doi.org/10.1111/1467-8721.00191>
- Tausch, N., Becker, J. C., Spears, R., Christ, O., Saab, R., Singh, P., & Siddiqui, R. N. (2011). Explaining radical group behavior: Developing emotion and efficacy routes to normative and nonnormative collective action. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 101(1), 129–148. <https://doi.org/10.1037/a0022728>
- Thomas, E. F., Duncan, L., McGarty, C., Louis, W. R., & Smith, L. G. E. (2022). MOBILISE: A higher-order integration of collective action research to address global challenges. *Political Psychology*, 43, 107–164. <https://doi.org/10.1111/pops.12811>
- United Nations. (2024). *Goal 5 achieve gender equality and empower all women and girls*. <https://sdgs.un.org/goals/goal5>
- United Nations Development Program. (2019). *Gender inequality index human development reports*. <https://hdr.undp.org/data-center/thematic-composite-indices/gender-inequality-index#/indicies/GII>
- Uysal, M. S., Saavedra, P., & Drury, J. (2024). Beyond normative and non-normative: A systematic review on predictors of confrontational collective action. *British Journal of Social Psychology*, 63, 1385–1409. <https://doi.org/10.1111/bjso.12735>
- van Zomeren, M., Kutlaca, M., & Turner-Zwinkels, F. (2018). Integrating who “we” are with what “we” (will not) stand for: A further extension of the Social Identity Model of Collective Action. *European Review of Social Psychology*, 29(1), 122–160. <https://doi.org/10.1080/10463283.2018.1479347>
- van Zomeren, M., Postmes, T., & Spears, R. (2008). Toward an integrative social identity model of collective action: A quantitative research synthesis of three socio-psychological perspectives. *Psychological Bulletin*, 134, 504–535. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0033-2909.134.4.504>
- Vázquez, A., & Carlos Reyes Valenzuela Loreto Villagrán Lois, D. (2023). Exposure to motivational messages promotes meritocratic beliefs and an individualistic perception of social change. *Social Psychological & Personality Science*, 16, 239–251. <https://doi.org/10.1177/19485506231214339>

- Vázquez, A., López-Rodríguez, L., Gómez, Á., & Dovidio, J. F. (2020). Ambivalent effects of positive contact between women and men on collective actions for women's rights. *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, 47(9), 1358–1373. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0146167220974162>
- World Bank. (2020). *GNI per capita, PPP (current international \$)*. <https://data.worldbank.org/indicator/NY.GNP.PCAP.PP.CD>
- Wright, S. C., Taylor, D. M., & Moghaddam, F. M. (1990). Responding to membership in a disadvantaged group: From acceptance to collective protest. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 58(6), 994–1003. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0022-3514.58.6.994>
- Yang, J., Mossholder, K. W., & Peng, T. K. (2007). Procedural justice climate and group power distance: An examination of cross-level interaction effects. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, 92(3), 681–692. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0021-9010.92.3.681>
- Yates, J. (1985). The content of awareness is a model of the world. *Psychological Review*, 92(2), 249–284. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0033-295X.92.2.249>
- Zawisza, M., Kosakowska-Berezecka, N., Glick, P., Olech, M., Besta, T., Jurek, P., Sobiecki, J., Best, D. L., Bosson, J. K., Vandello, J. A., Safdar, S., Włodarczyk, A., & Żadkowska, M. (2025). Worse for women, bad for all: A 62-nation study confirms and extends ambivalent sexism principles to reveal greater social dysfunction in sexist nations. *Social Psychological and Personality Science*, 16(8), 866–883. <https://doi.org/10.1177/19485506241302882>

Author Biographies

Chunhui Yang is a doctoral student in the Department of Psychology at the University of Macau. Her research focuses on gender and sociocultural perspectives in understanding individual attitudes and behaviors.

Tony Huiquan Zhang is an associate professor of sociology at the University of Macau. His research interest include political culture, social media, diversity and tolerance, and China/Asia-Pacific studies.

Natasza Kosakowska-Berezecka is a Professor of Psychology at the University of Gdansk in Poland. Her research focuses on the cross-cultural psychology of gender, with a particular interest in social change and the cultural factors that promote gender equality across different societies.

Hongfei Du is an Associate Professor in Department of Psychology at Beijing Normal University at Zhuhai in China. His research focuses on psychology of economic inequality.

Peilian Chi is an Associate Professor in the Department of Psychology at the University of Macau. Her research focuses on gender inequality and family resilience.